Jason Anderson*

Project-based learning and task-based language teaching: continuities, differences and the potential for integration

https://doi.org/10.1515/eduling-2026-0004
Received March 20, 2026; accepted July 4, 2026; published online July 28, 2026

Abstract: This article offers a historically-informed, critical comparison of project-based learning (PBL) and task-based language teaching (TBLT) in language education. It discusses their distinctive origins, theories of learning and composite features to identify elements of a shared underlying ethos and a number of important continuities. It also highlights important differences, particularly in the areas of cross-curricular learning, transferrable skills, opportunities for creativity and process versus product orientations, all of which have implications for their feasibility and impact in different educational contexts. The article also explores the potential integration of the two approaches. As well as proposing an original task-integrated project framework for occasions when integration is possible, it cautions that there are, nonetheless, a number of project and task types that do not lend themselves well to integration. It identifies an almost complete absence of comparative research on the two approaches, despite their widespread use and offers a number of suggestions and critical cautions for potential research in the future.

Keywords: project-based learning; task-based language teaching; learner-centred education; communicative language teaching; projects

1 Introduction

This article investigates the complex relationship between project-based learning (PBL; also known as project-based language learning) and task-based language teaching (TBLT) in language classrooms. To date, there has been very little prior comparison in academic literature, and almost no comparative research, on these two related, yet different, approaches and their potential roles in language education. While TBLT has been extensively theorised and researched in language

***Corresponding author: Jason Anderson**, Applied Linguistics, Social Sciences Building, University of Warwick, Coventry CV4 7AL, UK, E-mail: jason.anderson@warwick.ac.uk. https://orcid.org/0000-0002-3400-0135

Open Access. © 2026 the author(s), published by De Gruyter. This work is licensed under the Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License.

classrooms, PBL is less well known, despite having much earlier origins in mainstream education. Yet there is evidence that interest in PBL is increasing in a range of language teaching and learning contexts around the world today (e.g., in content-based instruction, English for academic purposes, mainstream primary and secondary curricula) accompanied by a corresponding increase of discussion in academic and practical literature (see Anderson 2026; Beckett 2025). At the same time, understandings of TBLT are evolving (Teng et al. 2025) to reflect its expansion into similar contexts to those where PBL is being implemented and researched, often leading to a blurring of boundaries between the two educational approaches.

This article seeks to investigate this relationship analytically and critically, teasing apart what are sometimes seen as broadly analogous vehicles for language learning (e.g., Bilsborough n.d.). It begins by identifying their historical origins and analysing the theories of learning underpinning them. It then offers an analytical comparison of key elements of the two approaches, including theories of learning, structural elements, considerations of multilingual pedagogy and their potential compatibility with generative artificial intelligence (GenAI). This is followed by a synthesis of key differences and clinal continuities between the two approaches. This leads to an initial exploration of the extent to which they may, or may not, be compatible for integration. Issues of comparative research and potential implications for practice are also explored.

1.1 General contextualisation and working definitions

Both PBL and TBLT can be classified as constructivist, child-/learner-centred approaches to education (Schweisfurth 2013), "progressive" in both Dewey's understanding of this term (1938) and within Bernstein's (2000) sociology of education. Both became popular in the late 20th century, primarily in more privileged Western countries where educational cultures, teacher education norms, class sizes, curriculum design and available resources have facilitated their emergence and establishment. It should be noted that while PBL is used in almost all areas of education, TBLT is almost entirely restricted to language teaching.

For the purpose of this comparison, the following working definitions of TBLT and PBL are adopted:

> Task-based language teaching is an approach to language education oriented around classroom activities that involve meaning-focused communicative acts with real-world applications (i.e., tasks) within which learners use their own (target) language resources to achieve a communicative goal or outcome. (Ellis 2003; Nunan 2004; Skehan 1998; Willis and Willis 2001)

> Project-based (language) learning is an approach to (language) education oriented around extended activities that provide learners with the agency to work collaboratively or individually to develop products or events that fulfil prespecified criteria using language in ways that are appropriate to project or curricular goals. (Anderson 2026; Gras-Velazquez 2020; Greenier 2020; Hedge 1993; Stoller 2006)

While this definition of PBL draws upon sources in language education, these are necessarily influenced by mainstream educational theory.

2 Historical perspectives

2.1 A brief history of task-based language teaching

Initially referred to as "task-based learning" (e.g., Collingham 1981), TBLT originated in a well documented intervention in south India entitled the "Communicational teaching project" (later dubbed the "Bangalore Project" by Western commentators). It was the brainchild of N. S. Prabhu and ran from 1979 to 1984 when Prabhu was a British Council English Language Officer (Beretta 1986). Prabhu's original vision emphasised meaningful communication in understanding and using authentic texts and materials (Prabhu 1987). Lessons involved a "heavy emphasis on receptive language" (Brumfit 1984b: 236) and avoided formal pair and groupwork, due to concerns that peer communication may lead to "fossilization" (Prabhu 1987: 83). Soon after, Michael H. Long and colleagues began to explore the possibility of designing syllabi and courses around collaborative tasks involving pair and groupwork, adopting the alternative term "task-based language teaching" (e.g., Long 1985; Long and Porter 1985). At the time, two approaches to communicative language teaching (CLT) were dominant in Western discourse: 1) Krashen's Natural Approach emphasised a noninterventionist methodology, primarily through meaningful input (his 'Input Hypothesis'; 1980); 2) "weaker versions" of CLT (Howatt 1984: 279), as typified by Byrne's PPP (presentation-practice-production) framework (1976), which supplemented the sequenced presentation and controlled practice of language from earlier structural traditions with an additional production stage that involved freer communicative use of language (Anderson 2017). A number of second language acquisition (SLA) scholars and language teaching methodologists opposed PPP and related structural approaches (e.g., Long 1985; Willis 1985), citing research indicating that learners do not necessarily acquire structures for spontaneous spoken use in the order that they are taught. Long (e.g., 1985), Swain (1985) and others were critical of Krashen's noninterventionist approach, arguing that while the focus on meaningful communication and acquisition through exposure was useful, some explicit "focus on form" (i.e., formal elements of language) was important, specifically at the point of

communicative need (see, e.g., Long and Crookes 1992). Other TBLT proponents offered similar rationalisations for a responsive focus on form, and during the 1990s and 2000s a number of subsequently influential publications on task-based language teaching emerged (e.g., Ellis 2003; Nunan 2004; Skehan 1998; Willis 1996).

2.2 A brief history of project-based learning

Evidence indicates that projects have been used in a range of formal educational contexts for hundreds of years. Knoll (1997) identifies their use in architectural education in the 16th century Italian renaissance and in engineering and industrial education in 19th-century USA. However, the first detailed proposals for their widespread inclusion in basic education appear in Kilpatrick's work, *The Project Method* (1918/1929), which offers an initial, albeit ambiguous definition of a project: "a wholehearted purposeful activity proceeding in a social environment, or more briefly, in the unit element of such activity, the hearty purposeful act" (p. 4). He identified "an effective purpose as the essence of a project", and observed that they could be both individual and collaborative (p. 5). He offered a number of examples that were used in the progressive educational schools that John Dewey (his mentor) and he pioneered in the USA in the early 20th century (Cuban 1993; Knoll 1997), all of which would be recognisable as PBL today. Cuban (1993: 140) provides evidence of the widespread, albeit occasional use of projects in the USA during the 1920s, although he also cautions that terms such as "project method" are ambiguous, and their use was sometimes overreported (p. 142).

Projects played roles in a number of educational approaches in the mid-20th century, including the Reggio Emilia Approach, Montessori schools and the Cooperative learning movement (Anderson 2026). In mainstream education, general guides for PBL include Fleming's (2000), Bender's (2012) and work by the Buck Institute (e.g., Markham et al. 2003).[1] Anderson (2026) identifies 2 broad schools of PBL in formal education, alongside what he calls "eclectic projects", which may draw on elements of both:

- inquiry-based approaches (including inquiry-based learning, problem-based learning and design-based learning)
- passion-based approaches (including passion projects, Genius hour and 20 % time)

In the field of language teaching, interest in PBL began growing within the CLT movement in the 1980s. See, for example, Brumfit's (1984a) theoretical arguments

1 The Buck Institute now operates as PBLWorks: https://www.pblworks.org/.

and Fried-Booth's (1982) early account. While research on PBL in language education is dwarfed by the extent of interest in TBLT research, scholars including Gulbahar H. Beckett, Tammy Slater and Fredricka Stoller have researched it in North America since the early 2000s (e.g., Beckett 1999; Beckett and Slater 2005; Stoller 2006). Beckett and Slater's project framework (2005) offered a means for documenting language and skill learning during the use of projects. Since then, a number of frameworks for PBL in language education have been proposed (discussed below).

This historical review serves to highlight a number of clear differences of origin that map onto important differences in their purposes, underlying theories of learning and conceptions of language use explored in detail below.

3 Theories of learning

3.1 Theories of learning underpinning task-based language teaching

When situated within wider approaches to education, TBLT is underpinned by what is sometimes called a *communicating to learn* approach, in which "learners learn to communicate by communicating" (Nunan 2004: 8), albeit with support and feedback on these communicative acts. Within CLT, this is sometimes compared to a *learning to communicate approach* offered by weaker versions of CLT (Thornbury 2016).

As a linguistic theory, TBLT is also underpinned by specific theories of language learning that emerged within the post-Chomskyan climate of early applied linguistics. This climate promoted a *competence* oriented view of language (Beckett 2025; Bernstein 2000), which has since been contrasted with *literacy* orientations (e.g., Anderson 2024; Harklau 2002). The latter are typified by stronger attention to written language socialisation and genre theory, as in Martin and Rose's (2005) Reading to Learn model, informed by Hallidayan systemic functional linguistics. For proponents of TBLT, (spoken) language 'acquisition' is seen to be a largely natural/innate process which is best nurtured through the provision of appropriate exposure (see Krashen's input hypothesis; 1980), opportunities to produce language (see Swain's output hypothesis; 1985), and opportunities to learn from interactional affordances during communication (see Long's interaction hypothesis; 1996). Consistent with the post-Chomskyan paradigm, the learning processes of greatest interest for TBLT advocates are those at the structural end of the lexicogrammatical continuum; so much so that Ellis (2019) neglects to consider lexical learning in his task-based curriculum (see Ellis 2020). Research evidence supports claims that the implicit learning of structural elements of language for spoken use should follow a learner's internal

developmental sequence (Pienemann 1998). However, evidence is also clear that this is not necessary or desirable for the learning of lexis, which can follow a formal synthetic curriculum effectively (Nation 2013), nor in written language use, when declarative knowledge can be leveraged effectively (Polio 2017).

Consistent with its focus on facilitating natural processes of implicit acquisition, in its stronger formulations, TBLT rejects structural or synthetic curricula in favour of a curriculum dependent on the learners' developmental needs. TBLT scholars from Prabhu (e.g., 1986) to Ellis (e.g., 2019) have emphasised the process or procedural orientation of TBLT, contrasting this with product-based syllabi. A key point of emphasis here is that while tasks should be seen to have a goal or outcome that learners should aim to achieve, achievement itself is less important than the learning that results from communicative interaction during the task (Ellis 2003; Long 1996). A learner may succeed in completing a task quickly and successfully, yet learn little from the process, whereas a classmate may fail to complete the task yet acquire language effectively as a result of procedural challenges experienced while trying to do so.

Consistent with the above described recommendation for no explicit "pre-teaching" of grammar, curriculum design models for task-based language teaching have often followed three-stage, *task-before-form* sequences ever since Prabhu's work (Beretta 1986; Ellis 2003; Nunan 2004; Willis 1996) as illustrated in Figure 1. These are sometimes contrasted with task-supported language teaching (TSLT), in which there may be an explicit form focus before the task. While TSLT is typically considered sub-optimal for acquisition by TBLT proponents (Ellis 2019; Long 2015), research evidence is inconclusive when comparing TBLT and TSLT. Some high quality studies find little difference or greater learning gains for TSLT (e.g., Li et al. 2016) and a recent meta-analysis by Bryfonski and McKay (2019) that claimed superior learning gains for TBLT, was subsequently found to offer support almost exclusively for TSLT, not TBLT, due to errors in inclusion criteria (see Boers et al. 2021).

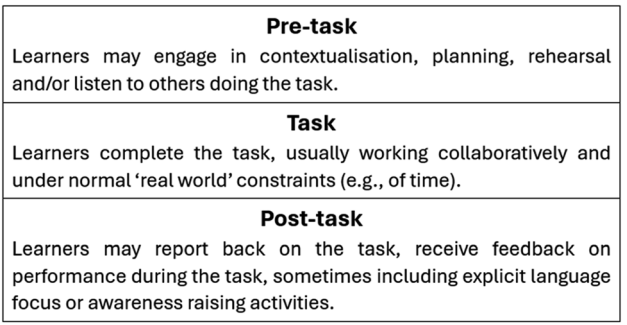


Figure 1: A typical 3-stage sequence for TBLT curricula.

Because of its origins within stronger forms of CLT during the late twentieth century, as with most other approaches at the time (Cook 2009), TBLT is a primarily monolingual theory of learning, one that assumes that classroom discourse and task interaction take place predominantly, if not solely, in the target language. As East and Wang (2024: 7) note, "tasks as defined, for example, by Ellis and Shintani both encourage and demand [target language] use for their completion with a view to enhancing SLA. In this context, the monolingual principle makes sense". To date there is comparatively little research on translanguaging during TBLT. Exceptions include Seals et al.'s (2020) re-analysis of data from a study on codeswitching that found translanguaging useful for learners, albeit predominantly in the task preparation stage of TBLT. They conclude that "there is *space for* both TBLT and translanguaging in the language classroom" (p. 289, emphasis added), suggesting compromise rather than coherence of learning theory.

3.2 Theories of *general* learning underpinning project-based learning

Despite its long, international history and wide application, it is possible to identify a single, broadly consistent "learning by doing" (Gras-Velazquez 2020: 1) theory of learning behind the use of project work in education. Since Kilpatrick (1918/1929), this principle has remained central to experiential approaches in education ever since, including discovery learning (Bruner 1961) and experiential learning (Kolb 1984). Within this broad philosophy, perhaps the most dominant, and self-evident, justification for using projects relates to their ability to provide learners with opportunities both to apply what they have learnt, and also to learn from bringing 'authentic' practices and problems into the classroom; closely related reasons that index the need for curriculum content to have ecological validity (i.e., relevance to real-world contexts and practices).

This *authentic application* aspect of the theory of learning manifests itself through the ability of PBL to offer a high degree of autonomy and agency to learners with regard to the project focus and outputs. In the majority of cases, teachers provide broad frameworks within which this autonomy operates, by specifying, for example, thematic areas for the project focus, specific problems that the project must address, or specific outputs that it must produce (Bender 2012; Markham et al. 2003), although there are exceptions. These include Genius Hour and 20 % Time, broadly synonymous terms for a passion-based approach to PBL in which learners devote regular periods of curriculum time to self-selected projects focusing on their own interests (e.g., Juliani 2014; McNair 2022). A defining feature of these approaches is the high degree of learner agency over the choice and direction of the project.

However, proponents also emphasise that such autonomy requires careful teacher support, including tools and processes to help learners identify appropriate project foci and goals (Juliani 2014).

Because projects themselves constitute a natural part of everyday practice, both in professional and personal life, a key supporting argument for their use in education lies in the holistic, cyclical nature of project work as a means to socialise learners (in the widest sense) into norms and values of society, commencing in the initial identification of goals, through planning the project, carrying it out and assessing its outputs and products. A number of authors have argued (e.g., Anderson 2026; Markham et al. 2003) that this structure also constitutes an important affordance that makes projects amenable to competence-based and standards-based curricula, which follow similar learning cycles. As such, each project can underpin or support a given unit of learning, enabling assessment criteria and rubrics to be tailored to the specific aims and intentions of the module or unit of learning.

Importantly, because projects invariably involve the creation of products, they constitute a key means for developing learners' creativity and self-expression. And while project assessment in mainstream education typically focuses on these products or outputs of the project (Markham et al. 2003), proponents of PBL in language education note that because assessment criteria are adaptable, they can also focus on elements of process where required (e.g., appropriacy of language choice, media of communication) (e.g., Anderson 2026; Stoller 2006).

Because of its high ecological validity, PBL is frequently promoted as a vehicle for cross-curricular and interdisciplinary learning (Anderson 2021; Stoller 2006), providing opportunities for students to bring together learning from different content subjects (Stoller 2002). It also has the potential to develop a range of transferrable "21st-century" and higher order thinking skills, particularly creating and evaluating (Anderson 2026; Beckett et al. 2025). In addition, because much project work is naturally collaborative, it facilitates the development of the regulatory and interactional skills emphasised in social-emotional learning as emphasised in the influential CASEL[2] wheel (Anderson 2026).

3.3 Theory of *language* learning underpinning project-based learning

Because there has been less attention devoted to PBL when compared to other approaches for language instruction, there is less scholarship on the theories that underpin specifically *language* learning during project work, when compared to

2 Collaborative for Academic, Social, and Emotional Learning: https://casel.org/.

TBLT, for example. Early discussion of theory drew on justifications for the use of projects from mainstream education (e.g., Beckett 2002; Hedge 1993), CLT (Hedge 1993), SLA literature (Beckett 2006) and content-based instruction (e.g., Stoller 2002, 2006). As research on PBL has increased over the last 30 years, the contextualised, integrated nature of language learning during project work has been explored from both content-oriented and sociocultural perspectives (e.g., Beckett 2025; Stoller 2002), highlighting the potential pitfalls of trying to isolate and study language development separately. Because of this need to understand its multifaceted nature, it is difficult to investigate the impact of PBL on language learning processes alone, as it rarely aims to teach *just* language and is rarely used *solely* for purposes of 'acquisition' (Anderson 2026). Literature reviews have identified specific advantages to PBL that are consistent with the above arguments for its multifaceted impact (Beckett et al. 2025; Hong Ng et al. 2020; Stoller 2006). Stoller (2006) identifies benefits relating to authenticity of experience and language, intensity of motivation and engagement, opportunities for input, output and interaction (similarly to TBLT), improved social skills, increased content knowledge, greater self-confidence and independence, improved decision-making, creativity and critical thinking. And while it is difficult to demonstrate a causal impact of these diverse areas of development on language learning, research on directed motivational currents during projects finds clear evidence of their ability to support, engagement, flow and sustained concentration in ways that are likely to be conducive to language learning (Muir 2020).

Because of this importance of not subordinating other elements of project work to language development, scholars on PBL emphasise that it "should… have a process and product orientation" (Stoller 2006: 24) recognising that the products created through projects are themselves important educational objects of assessment (Anderson 2026; Beckett 2025; Stoller and Myers 2020). This recognition of project products is reflected in a number of frameworks for PBL in language classrooms recently proposed (e.g., Anderson 2021, 2026; Greenier 2020; Harding da Rosa 2018; Stoller and Myers 2020). Such frameworks typically involve five or more phases, moving from initial planning to working on the project itself to presentation of products, outputs or artefacts and concluding with a review phase (see Figure 2).

Stoller (2002) also notes that CBI, and PBL in CBI classrooms, allows for both explicit instruction and implicit learning. Likewise, Anderson (2026) identifies opportunities for both implicit learning through meaningful communicative acts, and explicit instruction in three phases of project work:

Pre-emptive teaching of language: before or in early phases of the project; language that enables learners to discuss project content.

Responsive teaching of language: during project work; including supporting emergent language learning, form focus and *just-in-time* teaching, as required during the project.

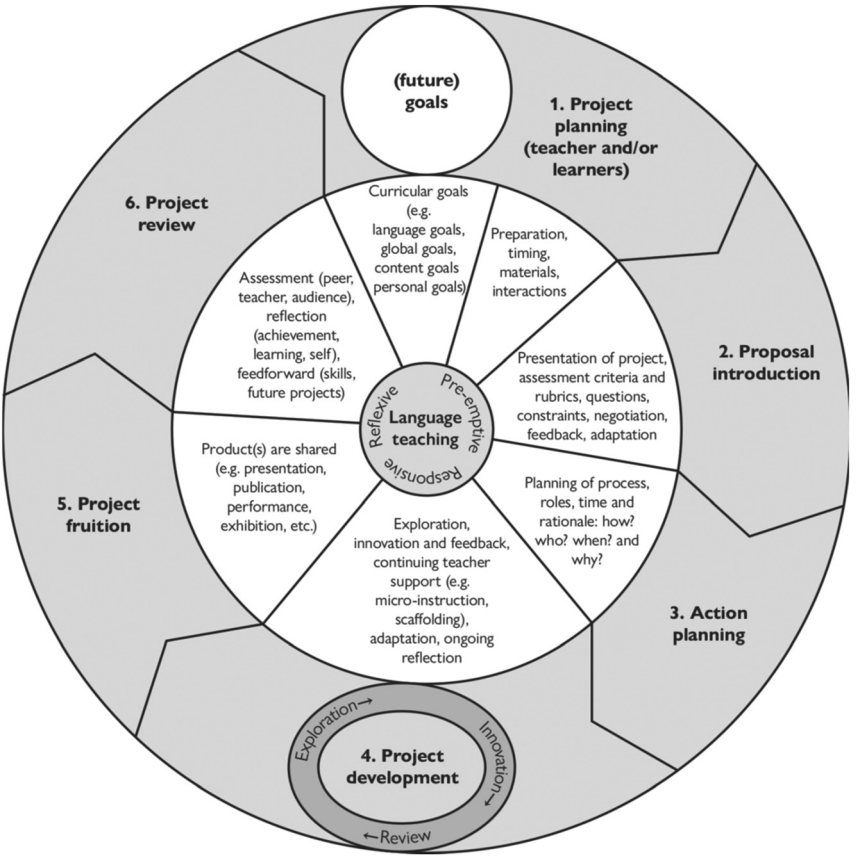


Figure 2: Anderson's project cycle (2026).

> **Reflexive teaching of language**: in response to final project outputs; including both descriptive feedback (focusing on content) and delayed corrective feedback (focusing on language use), yet with a formative (feed-forward) emphasis to improve future work.

Beckett (2025) further emphasises the language socialisation perspective of PBL (informed by systemic functional linguistics), and both Beckett and Slater (e.g., Slater 2020; Slater and Beckett 2024) draw upon Mohan's (e.g., 2007) knowledge framework to explore how explicit language learning can both support and scaffold wider knowledge development across the curriculum. Such models of PBL emphasise its ability, at different phases in the project, to allow for both more structured explicit

knowledge and literacy development to take place (Gee 2008) alongside the more implicit processes that are vital for competence-oriented acquisition.

While early discussion of PBL in language classrooms largely neglected to consider aspects of multilingual pedagogy, recent research (Carpenter and Matsugu 2020) and theory (Anderson 2026; Anderson and Dixit 2026) identify important opportunities for translanguaging within PBL. Because any given project is likely to involve a range of procedural activities and outputs, it offers diverse, meaningful opportunities for different languages to be used for diverse purposes within the project (Carpenter and Matsugu 2020), thereby replicating likely realities of future work contexts for students (see Anderson 2018).

4 Analytical comparison of task-based language teaching and project-based learning

4.1 Theories of learning

The above descriptions of PBL and TBLT reveal an important fundamental similarity in their approaches to learning: both promote a *learning-by-doing* approach, consistent with constructivist theory within which learners learn by engaging in real-world-like activities (Gras-Velazquez 2020; Nunan 2004). Such discovery-oriented approaches can be seen to be advantageous from the point of view of students who need or prefer greater freedom to innovate and experiment within the classroom before attempting to do so in the real world. Nonetheless, such approaches have also been criticised, particularly by scholars who caution against the dangers of minimally guided instruction, with regard to its higher cognitive load, lower efficiency rate for declarative knowledge retention (see Kirschner et al. 2006) and the greater challenges for learners from more disadvantaged backgrounds to make progress or uncover hidden realization rules of a given activity or discourse type (Bernstein 2000; Gee 2008; Martin and Rose 2005).

Both approaches are underpinned (in language education) by the assumption that implicit language learning can and should happen through meaningful opportunities to interact with language in scaffolded (usually collaborative) contexts. However, because of the stronger competence orientation of TBLT, one of the key challenges it faces relates to the comparatively limited opportunities for explicit instruction, even when opportunities for focus on form are feasible and taken advantage of (Swan 2005). As even proponents of TBLT have recognised (see Long 2015: 371–373), this makes it more difficult to provide sufficient opportunities for individually-appropriate developmental feedback in more challenging contexts (e.g.,

large classes, limited resources, rudimentary teacher education), which are the norm across much of the planet. Because PBL involves longer, multi-phase activity cycles, it offers a wider and more flexible range of opportunities for explicit instruction adaptive to project affordances, learners' developmental stages and contextual requirements. For example, explicit vocabulary instruction can be incorporated, both into early phases of project cycles and through responsive "just-in-time" teaching as required during projects (Markham et al. 2003; also see Anderson 2026; Greenier 2020). As discussed above, such targeted lexical instruction can be efficient (Nation 2013), and because PBL typically extends for more than one lesson, such responsive teaching can even be planned for.

4.2 Structural features of the two approaches

Comparisons of structural features of PBL and TBLT reveal a number of similarities. Both typically start with planning, followed by a central activity stage or phase and then some kind of 'review' stage/phase. However, frameworks for PBL are typically more detailed, reflecting their longer duration. Planning may have multiple phases (e.g., teacher project planning then learner action planning; Anderson 2026), the activity phase itself may also have sequential phases of information gathering, processing and review (e.g., Stoller and Myers 2020), and project work typically culminates in a planned, separate, explicit presentation or "fruition" phase (e.g., Anderson 2026; Greenier 2020; Stoller and Myers 2020) that is uncommon in TBLT (see Willis 1996, for an exception). It is also notable that while TBLT models often include some kind of opportunity for feedback, consistent with the language focus of TBLT, this is typically conceptualised as "corrective feedback" (i.e., correction of "errors" and ambiguities in language use), rather than a broader opportunity for assessment relative to project aims, reflection opportunities and feedforward, as offered by PBL models (e.g., Anderson 2026; Greenier 2020). This assessment phase potentially makes PBL compatible with use in mainstream curricular contexts within which modules or units of study require clear assessment criteria and rubrics (Markham et al. 2003). This contrasts notably with TBLT, which, because of its declared incompatibility with synthetic curricula (structural or functional), has frequently proven difficult to implement in mainstream curricular contexts (e.g., Bruton 2005; Littlewood 2007). Nonetheless, the significant time investment required for detailed project cycles may make PBL impractical in contexts where language lessons are few and opportunities for learner-centred activities within such lessons are limited. In this sense, the feasibility of many TBLT activities to be conducted within single lesson spans is an obvious advantage over PBL cycles.

As discussed above, TBLT is typically promoted as a process-oriented approach to language learning. This is likely to have advantages with regard to opportunities for learners to experiment with language in the classroom, make mistakes and learn from these, providing feedback is sufficient and appropriate (see above) and local educational culture embraces such practices. It is also likely to offer a more targeted language focus for learners who need this (e.g., adult learners who have already developed key transferable skills for social-emotional learning and 21st-century skills). However, a key advantage deriving from the greater length and structural variety of PBL models is their flexibility to balance between product and process orientations as and when required. Project assessment criteria can emphasise both products (e.g., texts, presentations, solutions or creative productions) and processes (e.g., languaging practices, teamworking skills, organisational efficiency). As discussed above, in both professional and personal contexts outside the classroom, the products of any given activity are invariably the most important determiners of success; by valuing these in project assessment criteria, a program can offer useful preparation for the realities of the real world. Because language assessment criteria can be embedded into such wider project goals, language use practices during the project can be allowed to mirror the complexities of language use in real-world contexts (e.g., with regard to multilingualism/translanguaging and digital/AI-supported tools; see below).

At this point it is useful to distinguish between outcomes (important to both approaches) and products (central to PBL), as the terms are *not* synonymous. An outcome refers to the result of an activity and may involve a decision, a (potential) solution or a change in opinion. A product, by contrast, is a tangible artefact, performance or presentation created during a project that is valued in its own right (Anderson 2026; Bender 2012). To exemplify this difference, a business team (or a group of business language learners) may undertake a task to decide whether to launch a new advertising campaign in response to falling sales; the outcome is the decision itself, or potentially the choice of campaign type or strategy, depending on the task. A project, by contrast, might involve the more creative act of designing and producing the campaign itself. Here, the concrete campaign elements constitute the products, and may involve (in this case) publications, multi-media content and slogans that, importantly, can be evaluated independently of the processes through which they were created.

4.3 Transferrable skills and cross-curricular learning in the two approaches

One important difference between PBL and TBLT stems from their rather different origins: PBL in mainstream education and TBLT in language instruction. In many

contexts where PBL is used, it is employed to contribute not simply to learning of content knowledge, but also to make links between curricular topics, thereby facilitating transferable skills and interdisciplinary learning across the curriculum. This includes areas such as social-emotional learning, higher order and critical thinking skills, 21st century skills, digital literacy, procedural and methodological skills (e.g., in inquiry- and problem-based learning) and the cultivation of reflective practice and assessment literacy. Indeed, PBL is frequently emphasised in programs that emphasise cross-curricular and holistic learning (IBO 2022; Symeonidis and Schwarz 2016). In contrast, because of its origins within the post-Chomskyan SLA tradition, TBLT theory has historically had little to say about the learning of complex cognitive skills (e.g., higher order, critical), nor about its relationship to the development of social-emotional and 21st century skills, or of wider (e.g. digital) literacies. More recent discussions of TBLT, particularly for basic education contexts has offered more discussion of these wider skills (e.g., Teng et al. 2025). Such discussion typically accompanies more flexible interpretations of what TBLT is, and what counts as a 'task', often including activities that would typically fall under definitions of PBL (e.g., MacMillan 2025; Piccardo and North 2019). While this difference between the two approaches constitutes a clear advantage for PBL, it should nonetheless be borne in mind that the broader educational scope of PBL can also make it difficult, at times, to identify and highlight language learning gains, sometimes necessitating the use of specific tools to do this (see Beckett and Slater 2005).

4.4 The impact of generative artificial intelligence

As in almost all areas of education, the recent, rapid rise of generative artificial intelligence (GenAI) is likely to impact on procedures and practices in both project-based and task-based curricula. PBL has long been promoted as a means for learners to both learn about and effectively integrate educational technology into classroom activities (e.g., Bender 2012; Resnick 2017), consistent with the strong ecological validity underpinning PBL. This also seems to be true with regard to the use of GenAI, at least in mainstream uses of PBL, where its impact and role is likely to be analogous to that in real-world use of projects. To date, research on the use of GenAI during project work in mainstream education suggests that it can both improve student achievement and support – rather than short-circuit – appropriate learning (e.g., Shaer and Cooper 2024; van Dijk and Zaytsev 2025). There is also some evidence that PBL might offer useful opportunities for learners to explore about and gain literacy in the applications of GenAI (see Dai et al. 2025). Nonetheless, it is important to note that the learning focus in these studies is content-, rather than language-related, a point addressed further below. With regard to TBLT, a systematic review conducted

by Li et al. (2025) aimed to investigate the application of GenAI in task-based approaches. While, concerningly, none of the 25 studies that they discuss actually mention TBLT (and few appear to have implemented it as defined above), the findings do suggest that GenAI can offer useful support *around* tasks, including feedback on performance and the use of chatbots as interlocutors to perform tasks with.

To date there is little, if any, research on exactly how the use of GenAI by learners *during* either tasks or projects might impact more directly on processes of *language learning* itself. Because of the ever increasing efficacy of GenAI, both to translate between languages and to achieve task or project outcomes to meet assessment criteria, there is a danger that, if employed freely by learners during tasks and projects, particularly under time or assessment pressure, the use of GenAI tools may impact negatively on key processes involved in language and literacy learning. As Anderson (2026: 215) asks: "is there a danger that learners could simply get the technology to do the language processing work for them, and learn very little language themselves?" Because of the lack of research specifically investigating the impact of GenAI use on language learning processes during tasks, it is difficult to make any solid predictions at the time of writing, although its assistive capacities for both learners and teachers around projects and tasks certainly justifies further exploration in these areas, particularly to identify those borders between more and less helpful uses of GenAI in education (see Ouyang and Jiao 2021).

4.5 Multilingualism in the two approaches

Within CLT, both PBL and TBLT were initially described and researched within the monolingual habitus of the late 20th/early 21st-century, and, as such, were viewed as target-language-only approaches that excluded learners' wider repertoires from the classroom. Since 2010, the multilingual turn in applied linguistics (May 2014) and particularly the rise of translanguaging theory (Garcia and Li 2014) have highlighted the shortcomings of such monolingual approaches. In response to this turn, a small number of researchers have experimented with adapting both PBL and TBLT to make them more multilingually inclusive of learners' full repertoires (e.g., Carpenter and Matsugu 2020; Seals et al. 2020). Because of the wider range of interaction types and skills typically involved in a project (e.g., receptive and productive skills, classwork, homework, individual and group learning, low-tech and AI-assisted), affordances for multilingual language use are likely to be correspondingly diverse and extensive (Anderson 2026). This contrasts with the recognition in TBLT literature that allowing for multilingualism within a task-based approach is likely to be a trade-off relative to its primary goal of developing implicit ability to use a target language proficiently (East and Wang 2024; Seals et al. 2020). Further, because PBL cannot and

should not be seen simply as a language learning methodology in isolation, learners can benefit from drawing on their full language repertoire when focusing on other goals of a given project, consistent with translanguaging theory (Anderson and Dixit 2026; Carpenter and Matsugu 2020).

5 Synthesis

This section of the article builds on the above discussion to identify important differences and continuities between PBL and TBLT; presenting a clinal comparison, discussing the potential for integration and also considering when and why integration may not be possible.

5.1 Key differences and continuities

The key differences discussed above are summarised analytically in Figure 3 which identifies the more language-focused nature of TBLT, and the wider, holistic learning features of PBL. However, because of variations in understandings and implementations of both approaches in diverse contexts around the world, in most cases the distinctions identified should not be seen necessarily as categorical, more as clinal *continuities*, hence the use of arrows to indicate degrees of difference where applicable.

	TBLT		PBL
Orientation	process driven	⟷	product driven
Learning focus	language	⟷	holistic/integrated
Learning type	implicit learning prioritised	⟷	implicit and explicit learning recognised
Assessment and feedback	corrective feedback on language	⟷	descriptive feedback relative to project aims/criteria
Multilingual compatibility	weaker	⟷	stronger
Learner agency	medium	⟷	high
Curriculum complexity	lower	⟷	higher
Time commitments	shorter	⟷	longer
Cross-curricular learning	not emphasised		central
Transferrable skills learning	not emphasised		central

Figure 3: A clinal comparison of PBL and TBLT features.

5.2 The potential for integration

This comparison of the histories, theories of learning and features of PBL and TBLT has identified both important similarities and notable differences between them. Nonetheless, because both fall under a *learning-by-doing* approach to education and many differences are clinal, they are likely to be compatible to some extent. Bringing them together may serve to harness important strengths in both, allowing for the conveniently short task cycles and process focus of TBLT to combine with the broader goals, product focus and wider affordances of PBL. Figure 4 presents a structuring framework for this purpose. It draws on important, albeit limited, prior scholarship arguing for such an integration (Benevides 2026; Piccardo and North 2019; Willis and Willis 2007) while also building eclectically upon common features of both approaches, as discussed above. These include the three-stage task sequence of TBLT and common phases in PBL frameworks, particularly, Stoller and Myers' (2020) proposal for iterative cycles in each project phase, with each iteration potentially realised through a task cycle. In doing so, the proposed framework may serve a useful scaffolding function, breaking up the potentially long stretches of autonomous work sometimes experienced in PBL into a number of discrete tasks, each of which can potentially be completed in one or two lessons. Teacher roles will vary flexibly both between and within the five project tasks, depending on specific activity type and focus as well as other factors such as learner age, communicative proficiency and topic familiarity. As Anderson (2026: 114) notes, these may range from managerial and guidance roles (e.g., when planning the project or arranging presentations), to supportive or facilitative roles (e.g., tutor, resource and participant) during research and innovation phases, and assessment-focused roles during the final phases. Within each of these project phases, further role adaptability may be required at different task stages. Teachers may need to provide more directive guidance during pre- and post-task stages (e.g., giving advice to learners when they plan for the task), while taking a 'back seat' during the task itself (e.g., as an observer or resource in case of need). In contexts where a primary focus on language is expected (e.g., foreign and second language education), this can be prioritised through specific task objectives, and in contexts where content focus carries greater weight (e.g., CLIL), greater freedom for translanguaging can be leveraged. The framework also allows for task repetition (indicated by the smaller 'return' arrows), when appropriate or useful, both to support learning and to facilitate optimal achievement of ultimate project goals.

Table 1 includes two example projects realised through this framework, both hypothetical, including possible tasks for each phase of the project. To provide an example of how tasks may be embedded, in the Planning task of Project 1, the

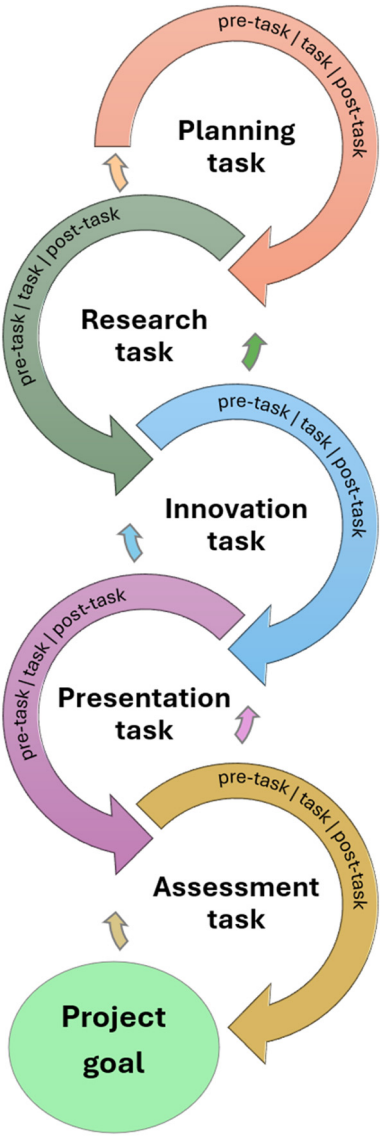


Figure 4: A task-integrated project framework.

pre-task stage might involve the teacher and learners exploring good examples of Gantt charts to identify key features. This would be followed by the task stage itself, in which learners create their own Gantt charts with the teacher monitoring and

Table 1: Two hypothetical task-integrated projects for primary and secondary levels.

	Project 1: secondary level (high resource context)	**Project 2: primary level (low resource context)**
Project goal	*A new page for a website for foreign language learners in a minority language community*	*A dramatized story telling evening for family and friends*
Planning task	– Plan a Gantt chart for the project	– Select an appropriate story
Research tasks	– Investigate needs/wants of community members – Evaluate available websites	– Identify important features of good stories
Innovation tasks	– Design page – Create language learning activity	– Create characters – Write script
Presentation task	– Record instructional video	– Present stories at the evening event
Assessment task	– Peer-evaluate each others' websites	– Self-evaluate and reflect on group performance

supporting as required. The post-task stage could then provide opportunities for learners to share their charts with peers and for emergent language work responsive to performance during the task stage itself (see Chinn and Norrington-Davies 2023). For further examples, see Slater and Beckett's (2019) detailed account of a realised example project that integrated 11 discrete tasks (e.g., creating a CV; writing a statement of purpose) towards the broader project goal of applying for postgraduate studies, as well as Benevides and Valvona's (2018) *Widgets, Inc.* coursebook that integrates tasks within unit-length projects.

5.3 When PBL and TBLT are not compatible

While some projects can usefully be understood as comprising a series of meaningful language use tasks, an important part of any critical discussion of the compatibility of PBL and TBLT should also consider when and why they should not, or could not (for reasons of compatibility) be brought together. The assumption of compatibility may overlook some of the unique affordances of each.

One of the principal advantages of tasks in language teaching is their relative brevity and flexibility. They are comparatively straightforward to plan and adapt to different curricular goals, lesson lengths and learner needs, even if synthetic curricula and grammar-oriented assessment often encourage the use of what Ellis (e.g., 2019) describes as "focused tasks". Unlike projects, tasks can be implemented effectively without extensive consideration of assessment criteria, long-term planning or complex project management. This allows teachers to respond to emerging

learning opportunities and provide meaningful feedback, including spontaneously, as appropriate. In many contexts, particularly where teaching time is limited, this flexibility may represent an important advantage of TBLT – tasks don't need to be part of projects to be useful to language learning.

In contrast, projects often derive much of their educational value from resisting decomposition into a predetermined sequence of tasks. In some forms of project work, communicative needs emerge through participation rather than from pre-specified objectives that learners work towards in stages. This may be particularly true of projects involving creativity, play, inquiry or innovation. For example, a drama-related project may involve integrated acts of scripting, rehearsal and artistic exploration in which language is used not simply to accomplish transactional goals but also to imagine scenarios, explore feelings and create identities. In similar ways, passion projects encourage learners to pursue areas of personal interest (e.g., hobbies) that may need to evolve in unpredictable directions (Juliani 2014). Many forms of inquiry-, problem- and design-based learning may also resist predictable decomposition into tasks. Such projects often involve concurrent and/or iterative acts of questioning, research, discussion, planning, experimentation, reflection and revision. While individual language use episodes during such projects may satisfy common definitions of tasks, the precise sequence and nature of these episodes is emergent and rarely predictable in advance. As research into creativity and innovation suggests (e.g., Csikszentmihalyi 1997, 1998), productive inquiry frequently depends upon curiosity, exploration and the willingness to follow unexpected directions. A concrete example of this is the problem-based project described by Prathikantam (2021), in which secondary school learners from India and the US agreed to work on the problem of how to reduce the weight of school backpacks, planning project activities together and identifying solutions that emerged from shared learning and innovation. Attempts to reduce such projects to discrete predetermined communicative tasks may diminish the very qualities that make project work educationally valuable and rewarding.

6 Past and future research

A literature search for prior empirical research attempting to compare PBL and TBLT, yielded only one study: Abdurasulova's (2023) mixed methods study from Uzbekistan involving 120 students and 20 teachers. She investigated the comparative impact of PBL and TBLT on student engagement, student language proficiency and the development of critical thinking skills. While details on aspects of procedure and analysis are lacking (e.g., how key constructs were operationalised, how data was coded), the findings support the theoretical discussion above. She found higher levels

of student engagement in PBL lessons, slightly higher language proficiency gains for TBLT (although not statistically significant) and stronger evidence for development of critical thinking skills in PBL lessons. While TBLT allowed for a stronger focus on language skills development, levels of engagement were lower compared to PBL (see Muir 2020, for potential reasons), for which evidence of holistic learning, a wider range of language skills and creativity were stronger. Abdurasulova also noted challenges relating to the increased time and resources required for PBL.

Further research involving PBL and TBLT is clearly of importance to understand their comparative and respective roles in different types of language education. However, an important methodological caution concerns how such studies are designed. If, for example, a randomised controlled trial dedicated similar amounts of time to PBL and TBLT initiatives on a similar topic, because the goals of PBL (and therefore the activities and learning) are typically much wider than those of TBLT, it can be hypothesised that greater gains in those aspects of language development prioritised by TBLT research would be expected under a TBLT intervention. Conversely, greater evidence of additional benefits and wider learning (e.g., of curriculum content, social-emotional learning, wider skills) would be expected under a PBL intervention, largely as Abdurasulova (2023) reports. As such, any comparison that focuses only on pre- and post-assessed language gains would be biased in favour of TBLT.

A second critical caution concerns how language learning is assessed. Scholars working in the psycholinguistic SLA tradition have historically prioritised implicit learning, particularly of grammatical structures and often through measures of complexity, accuracy and fluency in spoken use. Today, however, there is increasing awareness of the wider enterprise and multifaceted nature of additional language education globally (Anderson 2024; Douglas Fir Group 2016; Leung and Valdes 2019). As such, any comparative attempt to evaluate the impact of both approaches on language development, should consider *all* relevant areas of language development, including multilingual repertoires, written language skills (e.g., literacies, genre awareness; Martin and Rose 2005) and metacognitive awareness of language features, given the importance of these areas in many educational curricula and examination tasks around the world (Harklau 2002).

7 Conclusions

This article has investigated the complex, sometimes nuanced relationship between PBL and TBLT, reviewing both their histories and theories of learning. It has also critically compared them, finding advantages for both, dependent on the purpose of a programme or course, the context and the learners involved. It has identified a

number of important differences that are likely to be of interest to program designers and curriculum developers, providing that the often clinal variation between them is kept in mind. The article also contributes original conceptual discussion of the potential for synthesis of PBL and TBLT, arguing that, in some cases, there are advantages to their closer use and integration, and in others there are unique affordances that resist integration. It has also identified a lack of research evidence investigating their use, either comparatively or collaboratively, as well as minimal prior research on multilingual and GenAI-assisted learning within either approach – these are all areas of increasing importance for the future of language learning and teaching. As the teaching and learning of additional languages, particularly English, continues to increase in mainstream education worldwide, there is a clear need for more research into both their comparative, and integrated, merits in different curricular contexts.

Research ethics: Not applicable.
Informed consent: Not applicable.
Author contributions: The author has accepted responsibility for the entire content of this manuscript and approved its submission.
Conflict of interest: The author states no conflict of interest.
Research funding: None declared.
Data availability: Not applicable.

References

Abdurasulova, M. 2023. Comparative analysis of task-based and project-based learning. *Tadqiqotlar* 43(1). 15–27.
Anderson, J. 2017. A potted history of PPP with the help of ELT Journal. *ELT Journal* 71(2). 218–227.
Anderson, J. 2018. Reimagining English language learners from a translingual perspective. *ELT Journal* 72(1). 26–37.
Anderson, J. 2021. A framework for project-based learning in TESOL. *Modern English Teacher* 30(2). 45–49.
Anderson, J. 2024. Reimagining educational linguistics: A post-competence perspective. *Educational Linguistics* 3(2). 258–285.
Anderson, J. 2026. *Project-based learning: Cultivating creativity in the language classroom*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
Anderson, J. & S. Dixit. 2026. *Translanguaging in the English language classroom: A guide for teachers*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
Beckett, G. H. 1999. *Project-based instruction in a Canadian secondary school's ESL classes: Goals and evaluations*. University of British Columbia Unpublished Doctoral Dissertation.
Beckett, G. H. 2002. Teacher and student evaluations of project-based instruction. *TESL Canada Journal* 19(2). 52.

Beckett, G. H. 2006. Project-based second and foreign language education: Theory, research, and practice. In G. H. Beckett & P. C. Miller (eds.), *Project based second and foreign language education: Past, present and future*, 3–16. Greenwich, CT: Information Age Publishing Inc.

Beckett, G. H. 2025. *A paradigm shift for language education: Project-based learning and teaching*. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.

Beckett, G. H. & T. Slater. 2005. The project framework: A tool for language, content, and skills integration. *ELT Journal* 59(2). 108–116.

Beckett, G. H., J. Beck, F. Lestari, J. Yang & H. Jean Lim. 2025. Qualitative research synthesis of project-based (language) learning and teaching in East and Southeast Asia: 2002–24. *Language Teaching Research* (Advance Online Publication). https://doi.org/10.1177/13621688251313745.

Bender, W. N. 2012. *Project-based learning: Differentiating instruction for the 21st century*. Thousand Oaks, CA: Corwin Press.

Benevides, M. 2026. Project-based language teaching: How to select, sequence, and assess tasks [Conference presentation]. In *IATEFL Brighton 2026 international conference*. Brighton, United Kingdom.

Benevides, M. & C. Valvona. 2018. *Widgets Inc.: A task-based course in workplace English*. Atama-ii Books. Available at: https://www.widgepedia.com/index.php?title=Widgets_Inc.

Beretta, A. 1986. *Evaluation of a language teaching project in South India*. Edinburgh Research Archive. University of Edinburgh Doctoral Dissertation. Available at: http://hdl.handle.net/1842/18718.

Bernstein, B. 2000. *Pedagogy, symbolic control and identity: Theory, research, critique*. Lanham, MD: Rowman & Littlefield.

Bilsborough, K. n.d. *TBL and PBL: Two learner-centred approaches*. British Council Teaching. Available at: https://www.teachingenglish.org.uk/professional-development/teachers/knowing-subject/tbl-and-pbl-two-learner-centred-approaches.

Boers, F., L. Bryfonski, F. Faez & T. McKay. 2021. A call for cautious interpretation of meta-analytic reviews. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition* 43. 2–28.

Brumfit, C. 1984a. *Communicative methodology in language teaching*. Cambridge University Press. Cambridge, UK.

Brumfit, C. 1984b. The Bangalore procedural syllabus. *ELT Journal* 38(4). 233–241.

Bruner, J. 1961. The act of discovery. *Harvard Education Review* 5(31). 21–32.

Bruton, A. 2005. Task-based language teaching: For the state secondary FL classroom? *The Language Learning Journal* 31(1). 55–68.

Bryfonski, L. & T. H. McKay. 2019. TBLT implementation and evaluation: A meta-analysis. *Language Teaching Research* 23(5). 603–632.

Byrne, D. 1976. *Teaching oral English*. Hong Kong: Longman.

Carpenter, J. & S. Matsugu. 2020. Translanguaging in project-based language learning. In G. H. Beckett & T. Slater (eds.), *Global perspectives on project-based language learning, teaching, and assessment*, 49–68. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.

Chinn, R. & D. Norrington-Davies. 2023. *Working with emergent language: Ideas and activities for developing your reactive skills in class*. Hove, UK: Pavilion ELT.

Collingham, M. 1981. *Teaching techniques in task-based learning: A case study from the Bangalore/Madras communicational ELT project*. University of Lancaster MA Dissertation.

Cook, G. 2009. *Translation in language teaching*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.

Csikszentmihalyi, M. 1997. *Creativity: Flow and the psychology of discovery and invention*. New York, NY: Harper Perennial.

Csikszentmihalyi, M. 1998. Implications of a systems perspective for the study of creativity. In R. Sternberg (ed.), *Handbook of creativity*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.

Cuban, L. 1993. *How teachers taught: Constancy and change in American classrooms 1880–1990*, 2nd edn. New York, NY: Teachers College Press.

Dai, Y., J. Y. Xiao, Y. Huang, X. Zhai, F. C. Wai & M. Zhang. 2025. How generative AI enables an online project-based learning platform: An applied study of learning behavior analysis in undergraduate students. *Applied Sciences* 15(5). 2369.

Dewey, J. 1938. *Experience and education*. New York, NY: Collier.

Douglas Fir Group. 2016. A transdisciplinary framework for SLA in a multilingual world. *The Modern Language Journal* 100(S1). 19–47.

East, M. & D. Wang. 2024. Advancing the communicative language teaching agenda: What place for translanguaging in task-based language teaching? *The Language Learning Journal*. 1–13. https://doi.org/10.1080/09571736.2024.2380278.

Ellis, R. 2003. *Task-based language learning and teaching*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press.

Ellis, R. 2019. Towards a modular language curriculum for using tasks. *Language Teaching Research* 23(4). 454–475.

Ellis, R. 2020. In defence of a modular curriculum for tasks. *ELT Journal* 74(2). 185–194.

Fleming, D. S. 2000. *A teacher's guide to project-based learning*. Charleston, WV: AEL.

Fried-Booth, D. 1982. Project work with advanced classes. *ELT Journal* 36(2). 98–103.

García, O. & W. Li. 2014. *Translanguaging: Language, bilingualism and education*. Basingstoke, UK: Palgrave Pilot.

Gee, J. P. 2008. *Social linguistics and literacies: Ideology in discourses*, 3rd edn. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.

Gras-Velázquez, A. 2020. Introduction. In A. Gras-Velázquez (ed.), *Project-based learning in second language acquisition: Building communities of practice in higher education*, 1–6. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.

Greenier, V. T. 2020. The 10Cs of project-based learning TESOL curriculum. *Innovation in Language Learning and Teaching* 14(1). 27–36.

Harding da Rosa, J. 2018. *Promoting project-based learning: Q&A*. Oxford University Press ELT. https://teachingenglishwithoxford.oup.com/2018/06/14/promoting-project-based-learning-qa/.

Harklau, L. 2002. The role of writing in classroom second language acquisition. *Journal of Second Language Writing* 11(4). 329–350.

Hedge, T. 1993. Key concepts in ELT: Project work. *ELT Journal* 47(3). 276–277.

Hong Ng, C., Y. L. Cheung, W. Zhang & H. Jang. 2020. Researching project-based learning: A review and a look ahead at form and function in writing. In G. H. Beckett & T. Slater (eds.), *Global perspectives on project-based language learning, teaching, and assessment*, 23–45. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.

Howatt, A. P. R. 1984. *A history of English language teaching*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.

IBO. 2022. *Interdisciplinary teaching and learning in the MYP*. Cardiff, UK: International Baccalaureate Organisation.

Juliani, A. J. 2014. *Inquiry and innovation in the classroom: Using 20% time, genius hour, and PBL to drive student success*, 1st edn. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.

Kilpatrick, W. H. 1918/1929. *The project method: The use of the purposeful act in the educative process*. New York, NY: Teachers College Press.

Kirschner, P. A., J. Sweller & R. E. Clark. 2006. Why minimal guidance during instruction does not work: An analysis of the failure of constructivist, discovery, problem-based, experiential and inquiry-based teaching. *Educational Psychologist* 41(2). 75–86.

Knoll, M. 1997. The project method: Its vocational education origin and international development. *Journal of Industrial Teacher Education* 34(3). 59–80.

Kolb, D. A. 1984. *Experiential learning: Experience as the source of learning and development*. Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice-Hall.

Krashen, S. D. 1980. The input hypothesis. In J. E. Alatis (ed.), *Georgetown University round table on language and linguistics*, 168–180. Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press.
Leung, C. & G. Valdés. 2019. Translanguaging and the transdisciplinary framework for language teaching and learning in a multilingual world. *The Modern Language Journal* 103(2). 348–370.
Li, S., R. Ellis & Y. Zhu. 2016. Task-based versus task-supported language instruction: An experimental study. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 36. 205–229.
Li, Y., R. Shadiev & T. K. F. Chiu. 2025. Applying generative artificial intelligence to task-based language teaching and learning: A systematic review and meta-analysis. *TechTrends* 70. 150–163.
Littlewood, W. 2007. Communicative and task-based language teaching in east Asian classrooms. *Language Teaching* 40(3). 243–249.
Long, M. H. 1985. A role for instruction in second language acquisition: Task-based language teaching. In K. Hyltenstam & M. Pienemann (eds.), *Modeling and assessing second language development*, 77–99. Clevedon, UK: Multilingual Matters.
Long, M. H. 1996. The role of the linguistic environment in second language acquisition. In William C. Ritchie & Tej K. Bhatia (eds.), *Handbook of second language acquisition*, 413–468. San Diego, CA: Academic Press.
Long, M. H. 2015. *Second language acquisition and task-based language teaching*. Chichester, UK: John Wiley & Sons.
Long, M. H. & G. Crookes. 1992. Three approaches to task-based syllabus design. *TESOL Quarterly* 26(1). 27–56.
Long, M. H. & P. A. Porter. 1985. Group work, interlanguage talk, and second language acquisition. *TESOL Quarterly* 19(2). 207–228.
MacMillan, N. 2025. Big asks and uphill tasks: Making a case for TBLT. [Plenary session]. In *IATEFL international conference*. Edinburgh, UK.
Markham, T., J. Larmer & J. Ravitz. 2003. *Project based learning handbook: A guide to standards-focused project based learning for middle and high school teachers*. Novato, CA: Buck Institute.
Martin, J. R. & D. Rose. 2005. Designing literacy pedagogy: Scaffolding democracy in the classroom. In R. Hasan, C. M. I. M. Matthiessen & J. J. Webster (eds.), *Continuing discourse on language: A functional perspective*, 1, 251–280. Toronto, Canada: University of Toronto Press.
May, S. (ed.). 2014. *The multilingual turn: Implications for SLA, TESOL, and bilingual education*. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.
McNair, A. 2022. *Genius hour: Passion projects that ignite innovation and student inquiry*, 2nd edn. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.
Mohan, B. A. 2007. Knowledge structures in social practices. In J. Cummins & C. Davison (eds.), *International handbook of English language teaching*, 303–315. New York, NY: Springer US.
Muir, C. 2020. Directed motivational currents and language education: Exploring implications for pedagogy. Clevedon, UK: Multilingual Matters.
Nation, I. S. P. 2013. *Learning vocabulary in another language*, 2nd edn, Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
Nunan, D. 2004. *Task-based language teaching*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
Ouyang, F. & P. Jiao. 2021. Artificial intelligence in education: The three paradigms. *Computers and Education: Artificial Intelligence* 2. 100020.
Piccardo, E. & B. North. 2019. The action-oriented approach: A dynamic vision of language education. Clevedon, UK: Multilingual Matters.
Pienemann, M. 1998. *Language processing and second language development: Processability theory*. Amsterdam, Netherlands: John Benjamins.

Polio, C. 2017. Second language writing development: A research agenda. *Language Teaching* 50(2). 261–275.
Prabhu, N. S. 1986. Correspondence. *ELT Journal* 40(1). 77.
Prabhu, N. S. 1987. *Second language pedagogy.* Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
Prathikantam, V. R. 2021. Innovative practices: Connecting classrooms through synchronous and asynchronous technology. *Indian Journal of Educational Technology* 3(1). 108–114.
Resnick, M. 2017. *Lifelong kindergarten: Cultivating creativity through projects, passion, peers, and play*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
Schweisfurth, M. 2013. *Learner-centred education in international perspective: Whose pedagogy for his development?* Abingdon, UK: Routledge.
Seals, C. A., J. Newton, M. Ash & B. T. T. Nguyen. 2020. Translanguaging and task based language teaching: Crossovers and challenges. *Envisioning TESOL through a translanguaging lens: Global perspectives*, 275–292. Cham, Switzerland: Springer International Publishing.
Shaer, O. & A. Cooper. 2024. Integrating generative artificial intelligence to a project-based tangible interaction course. *IEEE Pervasive Computing* 23(1). 63–69.
Skehan, P. 1998. *A cognitive approach to language learning*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
Slater, T. 2020. The knowledge framework: An organizational tool for highlighting the "LL" in technology-integrated PBLL. In G. H. Beckett & T. Slater (eds.), *Global perspectives on project-based language learning, teaching, and assessment: Key approaches, technology tools, and frameworks*, 185–203. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.
Slater, T. & G. Beckett. 2019. Integrating language, content, technology, and skills development through project-based language learning: Blending frameworks for successful unit planning. *MEXTESOL Journal* 43(1). 1–14.
Slater, T. & G. H. Beckett. 2024. Developing critical thinking and language skills through project-based learning and the knowledge framework. In S. Ali & B. M. Berg (eds.), *The content area language and literacy open education*, 117–135. Singapore: Open Textbooks.
Stoller, F. L. 2002. Project work: A means to promote language and content. In J. C. Richards & W. A. Renandya (eds.), *Methodology in language teaching: An anthology of current practice*, 107–119. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
Stoller, F. L. 2006. Establishing a theoretical foundation for project-based learning in second and foreign language contexts. In G. H. Beckett & P. C. Miller (eds.), *Project-based second and foreign language education: Past, present, and future*, 19–40. Greenwich, CT: Information Age Publishing Inc.
Stoller, F. L. & C. C. Myers. 2020. Project-based learning: A five stage framework to guide language teachers. In A. Gras-Velazquez (ed.), *Project-based learning in second language acquisition: Building communities of practice in higher education*, 25–47. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.
Swain, M. 1985. Communicative competence: Some roles of comprehensible input and comprehensible output in its development. In J. Cummins & M. Swain (eds.), *Bilingualism in education: Aspects of theory, research and practice*, 116–137. London: Longman.
Swan, M. 2005. Legislation by hypothesis: The case of task-based instruction. *Applied Linguistics* 26(3). 376–401.
Symeonidis, V. & J. F. Schwarz. 2016. Phenomenon-based teaching and learning through the pedagogical lenses of phenomenology: The recent curriculum reform in Finland. *Forum Oświatowe* 28(2). 31–47.
Teng, M. F., E. Z. Wen & D. Li. 2025. Communicative and task-based language teaching: Where are we now? *The Language Learning Journal* 53(6). 685–693.
Thornbury, S. 2016. Communicative language in theory and practice. In G. Hall (ed.), *The Routledge handbook of English language teaching*, 224–237. Abingdon, UK: Routledge.

van Dijk, T. & V. Zaytsev. 2025. The impact of generative artificial intelligence tools in project-based learning. In *Proceedings of the international symposium on leveraging applications of formal methods, verification and validation (ISoLA)*, 1–29.

Willis, J. 1985. Theory and methodology: Do we know what we are doing? In B. K. Das (ed.), *Communicative language teaching. Selected papers from the RELC seminar (Singapore, April 23–27, 1984)*, 51–63. RELC.

Willis, J. 1996. *A framework for task-based learning*. Harlow, UK: Longman.

Willis, D. & J. Willis. 2001. Task-based language learning. In R. Carter & D. Nunan (eds.), *The Cambridge guide to teaching English to speakers of other languages*, 173–179. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.

Willis, D. & J. Willis. 2007. *Doing task-based teaching*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.